

Derivatives, Gradients, Jacobians & Hessians

The calculus behind optimization and backpropagation

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ES 667 · Deep Learning · IIT Gandhinagar

Why a calculus lecture?

Every step of training is a gradient step:

$$\theta_{t+1} = \theta_t - \eta \nabla_{\theta} \mathcal{L}(\theta_t)$$

So we must be fluent with

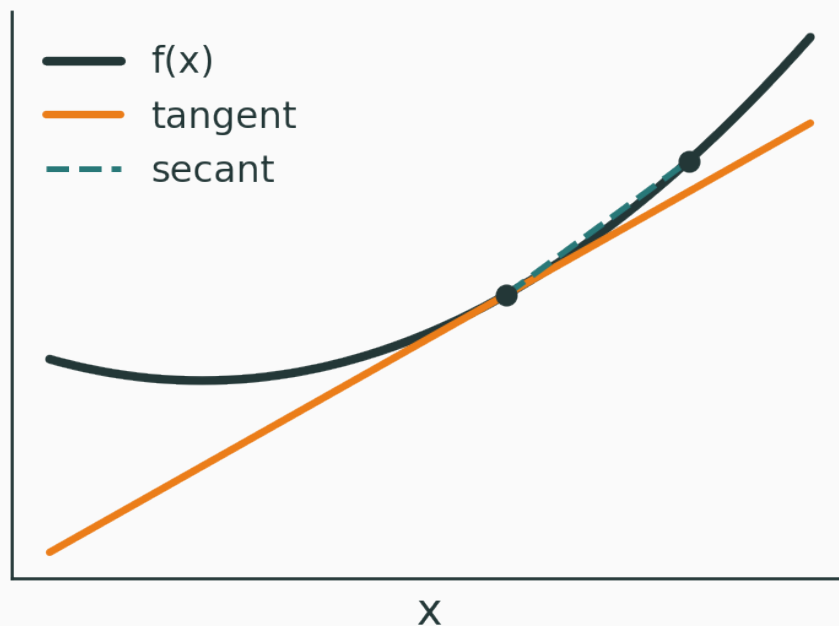
$$\frac{d}{dx}, \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial x_i}, \quad \nabla f, \quad J, \quad H.$$

These five objects are the entire vocabulary of optimization and backprop.

Object	Function type	Tells us
derivative $f'(x)$	$\mathbb{R} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$	slope
partial $\frac{\partial f}{\partial x_i}$	$\mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$	sensitivity to one coordinate
gradient ∇f	$\mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$	steepest-ascent direction
Jacobian J	$\mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$	local linear map
Hessian H	$\mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$	curvature

The scalar derivative

$$f'(x) = \frac{df}{dx} = \lim_{\varepsilon \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(x + \varepsilon) - f(x)}{\varepsilon}$$



the secant slope $\rightarrow$ the tangent slope as $\varepsilon \rightarrow 0$

The derivative is a local linear model

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Near a point x :

$$f(x + \Delta x) \approx f(x) + f'(x) \Delta x$$

derivative = best local linear approximation

Example: $f(x) = x^2$, $f'(3) = 6$, so $f(3 + \Delta x) \approx 9 + 6 \Delta x$.

INTERACTIVE

(to build) — drag the point and Δx ; watch the tangent, the secant, and the approximation error. Functions: x^2 , $\sin x$, e^x , $\log(1 + e^x)$.

Q. When is the linear approximation good, and when does it break down?

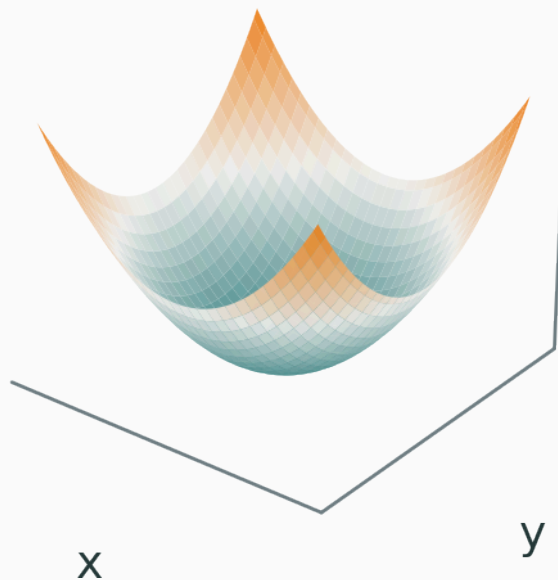
Partial derivatives and surfaces

From curves to surfaces

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A function of two inputs is a **surface**: $f(x, y) = x^2 + y^2$.

$$z = x^2 + y^2$$



input $(x, y) \rightarrow$ height $z = f(x, y)$

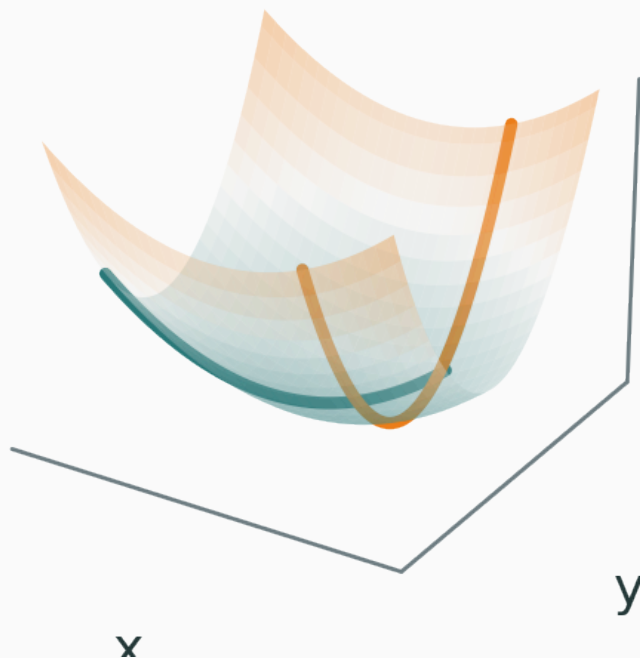
$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x}$ — change x , **hold y fixed**.

$\frac{\partial f}{\partial y}$ — change y , hold x fixed. For $f(x, y) = x^2 + y^2$:

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = 2x, \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = 2y$$

A partial is the slope of a slice v

slices = partial derivatives



For $f = x^2 + 3y^2$ at $(1, 2)$: $\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} = 2$, $\frac{\partial f}{\partial y} = 12$ — the function climbs **faster** along y .

INTERACTIVE

(to build) — move a point on a 3-D surface and read off the two slice slopes.

Functions: $x^2 + y^2$, $x^2 + 3y^2$, $\sin x \cos y$.

The gradient

Gradient: stack the partials

$$\nabla f(x) = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_1} \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_2} \\ \vdots \\ \frac{\partial f}{\partial x_d} \end{pmatrix}$$

For $f(x, y) = x^2 + y^2$: $\nabla f = \begin{pmatrix} 2x \\ 2y \end{pmatrix}$.

$$f(x + \Delta x) \approx f(x) + \nabla f(x)^\top \Delta x$$

the vector version of $f(x + \Delta x) \approx f(x) + f'(x)\Delta x$

Directional derivative

For a **unit** direction u :

$$D_u f(x) = \nabla f(x)^\top u$$

The rate of change along u is just the **projection** of the gradient onto u .

By Cauchy–Schwarz, over all unit u :

$$\nabla f(x)^\top u \leq \|\nabla f(x)\|$$

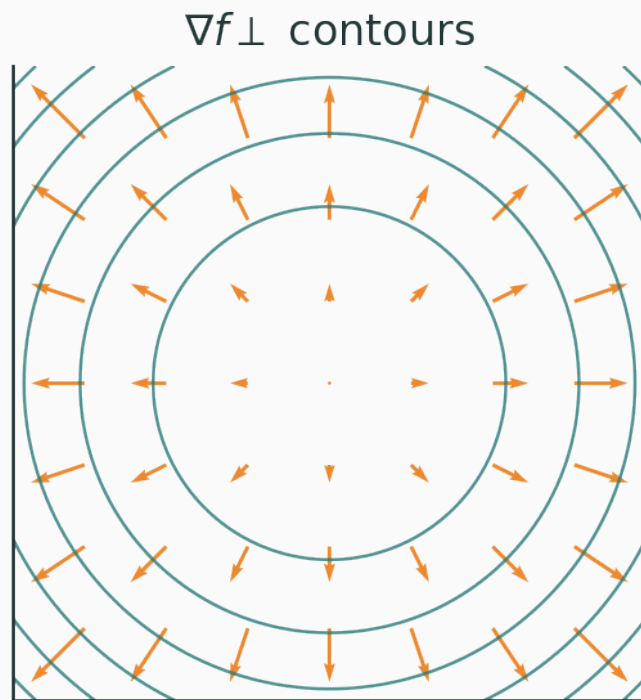
with equality at $u = \nabla f(x) / \|\nabla f(x)\|$.

∇f = steepest ascent • $-\nabla f$ = steepest descent

The gradient is perpendicular to contours

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A contour is the set $f(x, y) = c$. Along it, f does not change, so for any tangent v : $\nabla f^\top v = 0$.



$$x_{t+1} = x_t - \eta \nabla f(x_t)$$

Each step moves **perpendicular** to the current contour, downhill. The learning rate η sets the step length.

INTERACTIVE

↗ nipunbatra.github.io/interactive-articles/optimizer-race

Watch gradient arrows on a contour map and a descent trajectory as you change η and the start point. Surfaces: $x^2 + y^2$, $x^2 + 10y^2$, $\sin x + \cos y$.

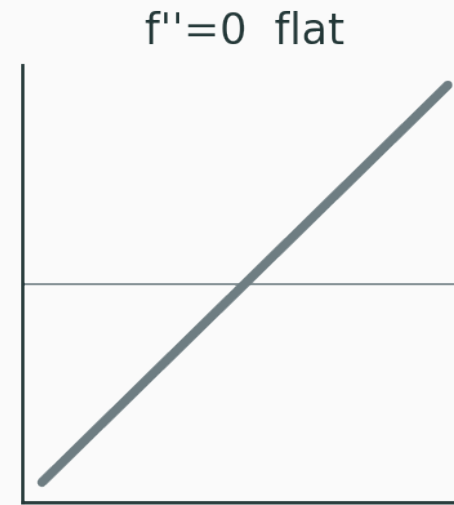
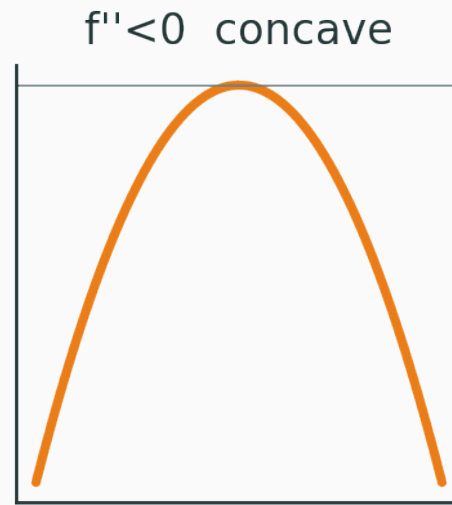
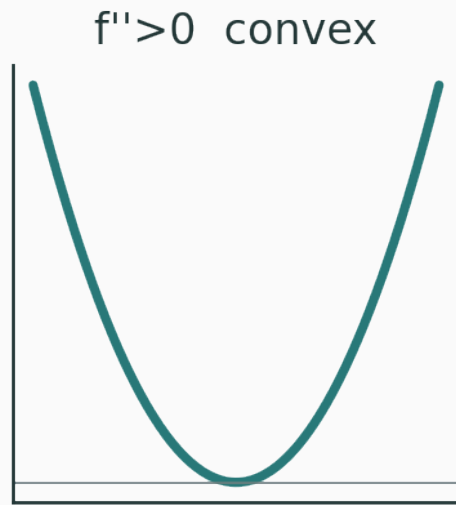
The Hessian and curvature

$$f''(x) = \frac{d^2 f}{dx^2} = \text{how fast the slope changes}$$

$$f(x) = x^2 \Rightarrow f'' = 2 \text{ (bowl); } f(x) = -x^2 \Rightarrow f'' = -2 \text{ (hill).}$$

Convex, concave, flat

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The Hessian: matrix of second partials

$$H = \nabla^2 f, \quad H_{ij} = \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x_i \partial x_j}$$

For two variables:

$$H = \begin{pmatrix} \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x^2} & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial x \partial y} \\ \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y \partial x} & \frac{\partial^2 f}{\partial y^2} \end{pmatrix}$$

$$f(x, y) = x^2 + 3y^2 \implies \nabla f = \begin{pmatrix} 2x \\ 6y \end{pmatrix}, \quad H = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$$

Curvature is **larger** in the y direction — the bowl is steeper that way.

$$f(x + \Delta x) \approx f(x) + \underbrace{\nabla f(x)^\top \Delta x}_{\text{tilt (gradient)}} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \Delta x^\top H(x) \Delta x}_{\text{curvature (Hessian)}}$$

gradient tilts · Hessian bends

For a quadratic $f(x) = \frac{1}{2}x^\top Ax$: $\nabla f = Ax$, $H = A$.

- **eigenvectors** of $H \rightarrow$ the curvature **directions**;
- **eigenvalues** of $H \rightarrow$ the curvature **magnitudes**.

Classifying critical points

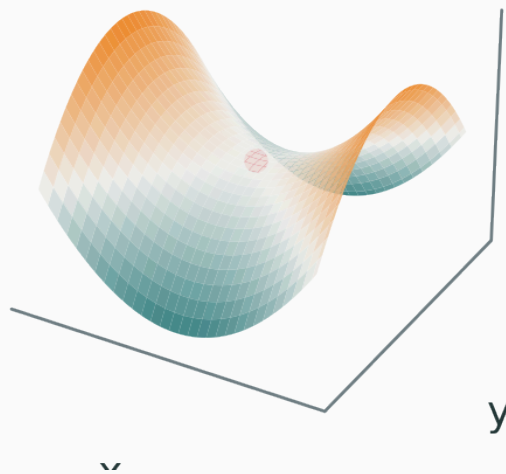
At a point where $\nabla f = 0$, the Hessian eigenvalues decide the shape:

Hessian eigenvalues	Local shape
all positive	local minimum
all negative	local maximum
mixed signs	saddle point
some zero	inconclusive / flat

A saddle point v

$$f(x, y) = x^2 - y^2, \quad \nabla f = \begin{pmatrix} 2x \\ -2y \end{pmatrix}, \quad H = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 0 \\ 0 & -2 \end{pmatrix}$$

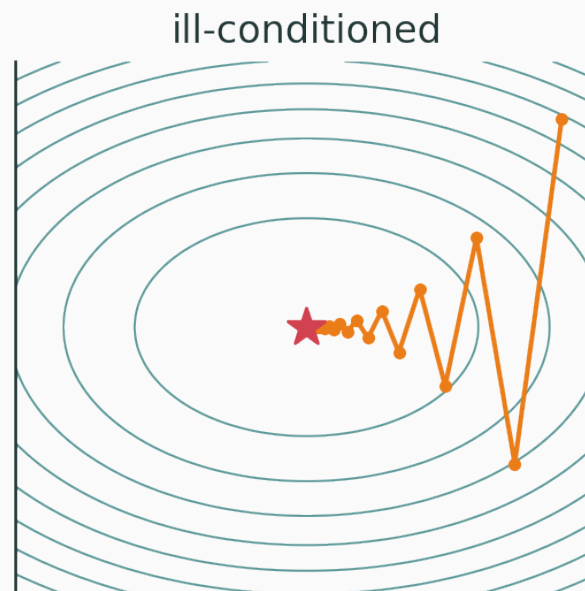
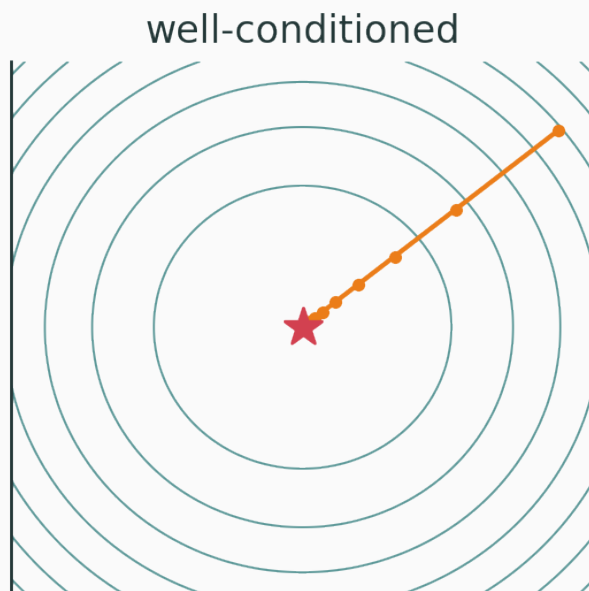
$$f = x^2 - y^2 \text{ (saddle)}$$



$\nabla f = 0$ at the origin, but it is **not** a minimum

Why curvature matters for optimization

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Elongated contours (a large **condition number**) make first-order gradient descent **zigzag** — much curvature one way, little the other.

INTERACTIVE

↗ nipunbatra.github.io/interactive-articles/optimizer-race

Reshape a quadratic $ax^2 + by^2 + cxy$, see its Hessian eigenvectors, and watch the descent path zigzag.

Q. Why does the trajectory zigzag when the contours are stretched?

The Jacobian

When the gradient is not enough

The gradient is for **scalar** outputs, $f : \mathbb{R}^d \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$. But network layers map **vectors to vectors**, $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$ — e.g. $z = Wx + b$. We need the **Jacobian**.

Jacobian: matrix of all partials

For $f : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$:

$$J = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x} \in \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}, \quad J_{ij} = \frac{\partial f_i}{\partial x_j}$$

$$f(x + \Delta x) \approx f(x) + J(x) \Delta x \text{ — a local linear map}$$

Linear layer $f(x) = Wx + b$:

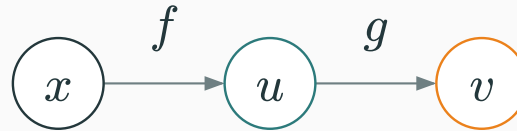
$$J = W$$

since $\frac{\partial z_i}{\partial x_j} = W_{ij}$.

Elementwise $h = \varphi(z)$:

$$J = \text{diag}(\varphi'(z_1), \dots, \varphi'(z_m))$$

(for ReLU, entries are 0 or 1).



$$\frac{\partial v}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial v}{\partial u} \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} \implies J_{v,x} = J_{v,u} J_{u,x}$$

Why we avoid full Jacobians

optional

A single layer with $x, h \in \mathbb{R}^{4096}$ has a Jacobian of $4096 \times 4096 \approx 1.7 \times 10^7$ entries.

Frameworks never materialize J . They compute **vector-Jacobian products** instead.

If $y = f(x)$ and $\mathcal{L} = \mathcal{L}(y)$:

$$\underbrace{\bar{x}}_{\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial x}} = J^\top \underbrace{\bar{y}}_{\frac{\partial \mathcal{L}}{\partial y}}$$

one VJP per layer — no matrix ever formed

Backprop is a chain of VJPs

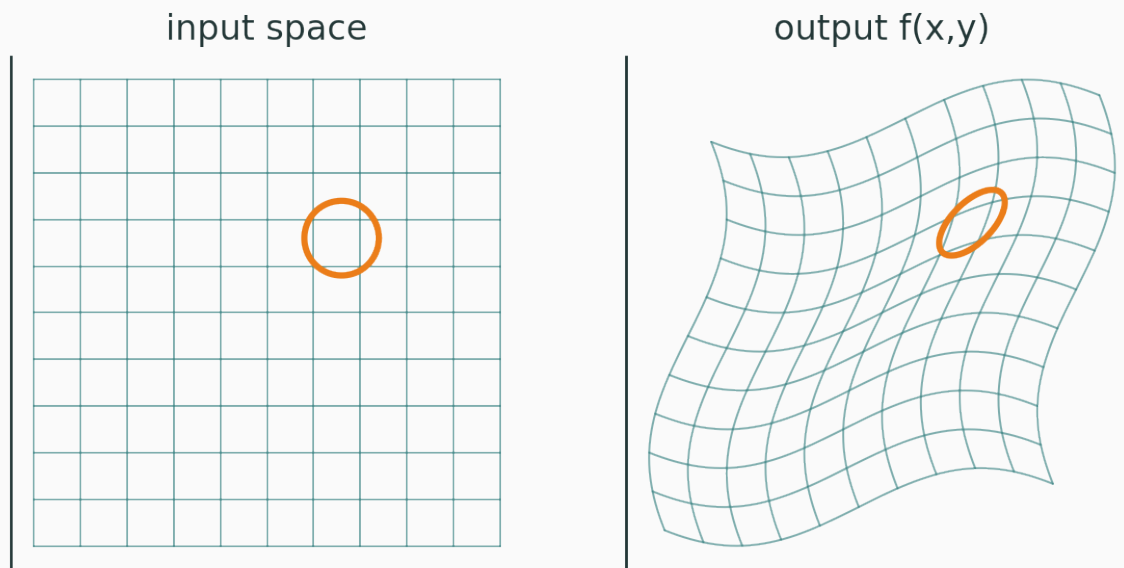
For $x \rightarrow h_1 \rightarrow h_2 \rightarrow \mathcal{L}$:

$$\nabla_x \mathcal{L} = J_{h_1, x}^\top J_{h_2, h_1}^\top \nabla_{h_2} \mathcal{L}$$

Evaluate **right to left**: $\bar{h}_2 \rightarrow \bar{h}_1 \rightarrow \bar{x}$ — vectors only.

INTERACTIVE

(to build) — a 2-D map warps a grid; the local Jacobian sends a small circle to an ellipse.



Where each object shows up in deep learning

Scalar activation derivatives drive backprop through nonlinearities:

$$\frac{d}{dz}\sigma(z) = \sigma(z)(1 - \sigma(z)), \quad \text{ReLU}'(z) = \mathbb{1}[z > 0]$$

- parameter updates: $\theta \leftarrow \theta - \eta \nabla_{\theta} \mathcal{L}$;
- saliency maps: $\nabla_x f_y(x)$;
- adversarial examples: $x_{\text{adv}} = x + \varepsilon \text{sign}(\nabla_x \mathcal{L})$.

Appears in backprop, sensitivity analysis, normalizing flows ($\log|\det J|$), neural ODEs, implicit layers — but almost always through Jv or $J^\top v$.

Newton's method $x_{t+1} = x_t - H^{-1} \nabla f$, Laplace approximation, sharpness/flatness, influence functions — but the full H is usually too large.

Why DL stays first-order

For P parameters, $\nabla_{\theta} \mathcal{L} \in \mathbb{R}^P$ but $H \in \mathbb{R}^{P \times P}$.

$P = 10^8 \implies H$ **has** 10^{16} **entries**

So practice uses SGD, momentum, Adam, and diagonal / Hessian-vector approximations.

The autodiff connection

Autodiff is none of the naive options

not symbolic differentiation

not finite differences

Automatic differentiation applies the chain rule to the **executed program** — exact, and cheap.

Scalar loss $\rightarrow$ reverse mode

Training maps $\theta \in \mathbb{R}^P \rightarrow \mathcal{L} \in \mathbb{R}$ (many inputs, one output).

reverse-mode autodiff computes $\nabla_{\theta} \mathcal{L}$ in one forward-pass cost

If $y = f(x) \in \mathbb{R}^m$, `backward()` must know **which** scalar to differentiate — you supply a vector v and it returns

$$v^\top J.$$

This is why PyTorch errors on `.backward()` of a non-scalar tensor without a `gradient=` argument.

```
import torch
x = torch.tensor([1.0, 2.0], requires_grad=True)
def f(x):
    return torch.stack([x[0]**2 + x[1], torch.sin(x[0]*x[1])])

J = torch.autograd.functional.jacobian(f, x)  # full 2x2 Jacobian
v = torch.tensor([1.0, 3.0])
f(x).backward(v)                             # x.grad == v^T J (a VJP)
```

```
def g(x):  
    return x[0]**2 + 3*x[1]**2 + x[0]*x[1]  
  
H = torch.autograd.functional.hessian(g, x)    # -> [[2, 1], [1, 6]]
```

$H = \begin{pmatrix} 2 & 1 \\ 1 & 6 \end{pmatrix}$ — matches the second partials by hand.

Summary

One table to remember

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Object	Shape	Main DL use
$f'(x)$	scalar	activation derivative
∇f	d	parameter update
J	$m \times n$	vector-map sensitivity
$J^\top v$	n	backpropagation
H	$d \times d$	curvature
Hv	d	second-order methods

derivative = slope

gradient = direction of steepest ascent

Jacobian = local linear map

Hessian = curvature

backprop = an efficient chain of vector-Jacobian products

We can now read every derivative object in deep learning.

Next: **computation graphs and backpropagation** — the chain rule, run backward through the program.